

Indian would accept, either from the economic or educational point of view.

In pointing out these facts, let us not be misunderstood as belittling the work done or contemplated by the framers of the Despatch. We cannot, however, find any justification for the superlative terms in which some historians have described the Despatch and even called it "The Magna Charta of Indian Education". In our opinion, such a view betrays a lack of proportion. The Despatch, no doubt, did a lot towards the evolution of a good system of education in India according to the educational ideals then prevalent. But these ideals have changed so materially since then that it would help India very little to be now guided by the sentiments of the Despatch. As for calling it a Charter, one cannot do better than to quote the late M.R. Paranjpe who observes:

But in spite of all these good features it would be incorrect to describe the Educational Despatch of 1854 as an Educational Charter, *i.e.*, an official paper bestowing or guaranteeing certain rights and privileges. The Despatch does not ever refer to the ideal of universal literacy although it expects education to spread over a wider field through the grants-in-aid system; it does not recognize the obligation of the State to educate every child below a certain age; it does not declare that poverty shall be no bar to the education of deserving students; and while it may be admitted that employment in Government offices was not the object of English education as visualised in the Despatch, the authors did not aim at education for leadership, education for the industrial regeneration of India, education for the defence of the motherland, in short, education required by the people of a self-government nation. It was perhaps pardonable that the authors of the Despatch could not visualise the progress of Indian aspirations after a century—but that is admitting indirectly the imperfections of the Despatch. Whatever were its values in 1854, it would be ridiculous to describe the Despatch as an Educational Charter, in the year 1941.¹

¹*Progress of Education*, Poona, July 1941, pp. 51-2.

CHAPTER FIVE

The Victorian Era (I) (1854-1902)

The Despatch of 1854, was at first looked upon as the beginning of a great era of educational reforms under the East India Company. But, as events actually turned out, it proved to be its swan song. The Departments of Public Instruction were constituted in 1855-56 and the Universities were incorporated in 1857. But before any further action could be taken on the terms of the Despatch, the Company ceased to be a political power in 1858 and the Government of India came directly under the Crown. Broadly speaking, therefore, education in India under the East India Company may be taken to have ended with the Despatch of 1854 itself.

General Features of the Period from 1854 to 1902: The Despatch of 1854, as pointed out in the last chapter, took stock of the past and laid down long-range policies for future guidance. The directions of the Despatch continued to be followed in broad outline until the opening of the twentieth century when Lord Curzon started another new era in Indian education. The period of about five decades between the Despatch of 1854 and the appointment of the Indian Universities Commission by Lord Curzon in 1902 may, therefore, be described as the third period in modern education in India or, briefly, the *Victorian Era* in Indian Education.

As compared with India under the Company, this Victorian Era was a period of peace and tranquillity. Between 1813 and 1853, the main tasks of the British administrators were conquest and consolidation. It was, therefore, a period of almost continuous warfare. Anarchy and general unrest prevailed in several parts of India and law and order was restored only when these parts were conquered and brought directly under the British rule.

or indirectly under British influence through a treaty with their rulers. By 1854, however, the whole of India had been either conquered by the Company or brought under its influence and law and order were restored everywhere. But for the events of 1857, no further wars were fought on the Indian soil during the period under review¹ and a background of peace and social security which is so essential a prerequisite of educational progress was maintained throughout.

The second feature of this period which distinguishes it from the earlier one is the *grateful* attitude of the Indian people towards their British *conquerors*. Prior to 1854, the Indian people and the Britishers had never come together close enough to understand each other. The Indian attitude towards the British varied from place to place, from time to time, and from one individual or social class to another. It was sometimes that of hostility, sometimes of awe, but most often of suspicion and distrust. There was a general unwillingness (except on the part of a few persons of the upper classes) to study the language of the conquerors, to understand their culture, and generally to come into closer relations with them. After 1902, there was again a parting of the ways because the national sentiment had been reawakened and the Indian people had begun their war against their British rulers. But between 1854 and 1902, we generally find the most harmonious relations existing between the rulers and the ruled. The Indian people were sick of the anarchy that had followed the disruption of the Mughal Empire and, more than anything else, needed a strong government that would maintain law and order. As the British rule supplied this prime and urgent need, all its inconveniences and shortcomings were forgotten and the people blessed the British conquest of India and hailed it as their good fortune. There was also a general feeling that the British connection with India should continue indefinitely and that it would ultimately lead to great progress and happiness of the Indian people. The earlier attitude of distrust and suspicion, therefore, gradually disappeared and an admiration of Western culture and science in general and English literature and history in particular began to gain ground instead. This

¹The Afghan and Burma Wars, although fought in this period, were small affairs on the whole and they did not at all affect the mainland of India.

combined feeling of gratitude, loyalty and admiration was quite satisfying to Englishmen as well because it made them feel that they were serving some divine and altruistic purpose in conquering and administering India. There were, of course, a few significant exceptions to this general picture. Some sections of the Indians had never really reconciled themselves to British rule; others had the vision to see the deficiencies of foreign rule and to ask for self-government, although at some distant date. The Indian National Congress had already been established in 1885 and several nationalist leaders, like Dadabhai Naoroji, were already criticising the *un-British* character of the Indian administration. But these early signs of the coming storms were a minor phenomenon and it would be generally correct to say that, during this period, the attitude of the Indian people towards British rule was broadly one of loyalty, gratitude and admiration, as compared to that of fear, distrust or suspicion between 1813 and 1853 and of open hostility after 1902.

The third distinctive feature of this period is that the centre of interest in education now shifted from London to Calcutta. Prior to 1854, most educational questions had to be referred *Home* for the orders of the Court of Directors. A reference to the historical events narrated in Chapters II to IV will show that (a) every important question was decided, before 1854, by a Despatch from the Directors in London, and (b) that Parliament showed very keen interest in Indian education, particularly when the Charters of the Company were renewed in 1698, 1793, 1813, 1833, and 1853. This Parliamentary interest in Indian affairs in general, and in Indian education in particular, was reduced to the lowest level as soon as the governance of India was transferred to the Crown. It is true that the Secretary of State for India—the new officer who took the place of the Court of Directors as well as the President of the Board of Control—wrote the Educational Despatch of 1859 and supervised Indian education in a general manner just as he supervised all other departments of the Indian administration. But his control was very broad and general and, therefore, the most effective authority in Indian education after 1858 was the Government of India, rather than any authority at *Home*.

Between 1854 and 1902, we find a good deal of evidence to show that the Central Government took a very keen and

continuous interest in education. For instance, the Despatch of 1854 was followed, in 1855, by the appointment of a *Central Committee* to plan the universities; in 1857, the Indian Universities were established by Acts of the Central Executive Council. From 1865-66 to 1870-71, the Government of India held, through special officers, detailed surveys of education in India. In 1882, the Indian Education Commission was appointed by the orders of the Central Government. In 1886-87, 1891-92, 1896-97 and 1901-2 appeared four quinquennial reviews held by the Government of India regarding the progress of education. Moreover, the Government of India also passed hundreds of resolutions on educational matters during this period because its sanction was necessary to every important decision or change of policy. This general trend will be illustrated by several examples narrated in the course of the next three chapters; but it would be enough to state here that the years between 1854 and 1902 witnessed an almost complete loss of interest in Indian education on the part of the British Parliament, its place being taken by the keen and intensive interest which the Government of India now began to take in educational matters.

Fourthly, this period was one of general financial stringency—a feature in which it resembled the earlier period between 1813 and 1853. The reasons for the stringency were, however, different. Prior to 1853, the financial stringency of the Company was mainly due to the heavy military expenditure which had to be incurred on the conquest of India, and to the general unsettled condition of the country, not to speak of the very natural desire of the Directors of the East India Company not to allow their dividends to get smaller. Between 1854 and 1902, however, the only wars were the events of 1857, and the Afghan and Burma wars whose financial implications were not so heavy and law and order was maintained everywhere. The revenues of Government, therefore, expanded considerably during this period; and yet, adequate finances for education could never be found and Government was almost always complaining of the shortage of funds. The explanation of this paradox lies in a number of factors among which the following may be mentioned:

(a) Between 1854 and 1902, the financial administration in

India was extremely defective. Consequently, education could not secure liberal and ever-increasing grants.

(b) Between 1854 and 1870, the budget of the Central Government had, more often than not, a deficit, and after 1870 also, the situation did not improve because of Afghan and Burma wars and the famines and the plague which affected most parts of India. These political situations and natural calamities worsened the financial position of the Central Government and restricted the funds available for education.

(c) British administration failed to develop the potential industrial resources of the country because its objective, as frankly started by the Despatch of 1854, was to develop India as a supplier of raw materials to England and the buyer of her finished goods. This lack of industrial development naturally led to a very great contraction of the wealth available for taxation.

(d) The policy of the Government in taxation was not very progressive. The poor were heavily taxed through taxes like land-revenue, local fund cess on land-revenue, the salt-tax, etc. But the rich did not pay their share to a like extent—a factor that again led to the diminution of national public income and resulted in contracting expenditure on education and such other utility services.

A detailed financial history of this period is beyond the scope of this book; but what has been stated above is enough to show that the financial stringency of this period was only partly due to wars and mainly to a defective system of financial administration, failure to develop the wealth of the country, natural calamities like plague and famine, and a regressive and unsatisfactory taxation policy. But whatever the reasons may be, their inevitable result was to contract materially the funds available for education and to hamper its progress.

True, the shortage of Government funds for education was sought to be made good in this period, by securing additional funds from (i) the levy of local fund cesses in rural areas, (ii) contribution of municipalities in urban areas, (iii) fees, and (iv) donations from the public. A detailed account of these developments will be given, in the relevant context, in the following chapters. It may be admitted here, however, that these sources of revenue did make up, to some extent, for the inadequacy of

Government grants—particularly in the field of secondary and collegiate education. But they were still very meagre and could hardly atone in full for the extreme inadequacy of the Government grant for education. In spite of these new resources, therefore, financial stringency continued to dominate the educational scene and hold up progress at every point, but most of all in mass education.

Finally, this period differed from the earlier one in its comparative freedom from controversies, and its greater record of achievements. As shown in Chapters II to IV, the period from 1813 to 1853 was mainly one of violent controversies and experiments and its achievements in terms of institutions started or pupils educated were inconsiderable. This aspect changed materially after 1854. The Despatch of 1854 laid down educational policies in such details that several controversies were effectively sealed up and the ground for a rapid advance in education was prepared automatically. It is, of course, true that even this period is not altogether free from controversies—some of which were carried over from the preceding period and others were newly raised. This, in a way, is inevitable, because every age in education has its own problems and raises its own controversies. But nevertheless, the period between 1854 and 1902 may be said to be more a period of achievements than of controversies. It witnessed the establishment of five Universities in India—at Calcutta, Madras, Bombay, Allahabad and Lahore; it brought into existence an Education Department in each Province which, by 1902, had established a fairly detailed and satisfactory system of the supervision of private educational enterprise and, in addition, conducted a large number of educational institutions under its direct control; it saw a very rapid expansion of collegiate and secondary education and a tremendous increase of private Indian enterprise in this field; it started the collection of special taxes for education and saw a large increase in primary schools of the modern type; it witnessed significant developments in vocational education and in the education of such erstwhile backward groups as Muslims, Harijans, aboriginals and women. These advances, which by no means exhaust the whole list, indicate that this was a period of steady educational development in which controversies played but a minor role.

In fact, had it not been for the financial stringency that was so conspicuous a feature of the situation, the achievements of this period might have been greater still.

Main Documents of the Period: From this survey of the broad general features of the period, we shall now turn to a study of the important documents which surveyed or influenced its events and policies.

The Despatch of 1854 whose provisions were analysed in detail in the preceding chapter, forms not only the starting, but the dominating point for the period as a whole. Right up to the time of Lord Curzon, we find the Despatch of 1854 being continuously quoted or referred to in all educational controversies for the authoritative decision of principles of policies. The mere fact that a certain policy was recommended by the Despatch of 1854 was assumed at this time as perfectly good evidence of its validity, and the most rigorous proof was demanded for every variation proposed. This does not mean that *all* the injunctions of the Despatch were carried out. As shown earlier in Chapter IV, several important directives of the Despatch were observed more in breach than in fulfilment. All the same, it may be said that, between 1854 and 1902, the educational policy in India was chiefly dictated by the Despatch of 1854.

The next document is a *Despatch, dated 28th April, 1858, from Lord Ellenborough*, the President of the Board of Control. It was written shortly after the "Mutiny" and is a panicky document which tried to reverse the policies laid down by the Despatch of 1854 on the ground that they had led to the events of 1857. Fortunately, a better sense of reality soon dawned and its recommendations were never acted upon.

In 1859 came the third important document of this period—*Lord Stanley's Despatch of 1859*. The occasion for the Despatch was the transfer of the governance of India from the Company to the Crown (1858). Such a major change of administration required that the new authorities should review the existing policies in education and either confirm or amend them as early as possible. Such a review had become all the more urgent since the Despatch of Lord Ellenborough had raised doubts regarding several important policies enunciated in the Despatch of 1854,

viz., necessity of direct official attempts for mass education, encouragement of the education of women, grants-in-aid to mission schools, etc., and recommended that the Downward Filtration Theory be continued that the education of women be not interfered with and that no assistance be given to mission schools. Lord Stanley, the first Secretary of State for India, reviewed the whole position, confirmed all the directives of the Despatch of 1854 (except in so far as primary education is concerned) and put an end to the storm raised by Lord Ellenborough.

Fourteen years later, in 1813, came the next important document of this period—the *Report of the Indian Education Commission*. The appointment of this Commission was necessitated by two reasons: the first was the desire of the Government of India to review in a comprehensive manner the development of education in India since the Despatch of 1854. In the earlier period, the Charter of the Company came for renewal every 20 years and provided an occasion for an exhaustive review of education. With the abolition of the Company, that opportunity was lost; but it was felt that the old practice of periodical reviews was healthy and useful and, in 1882, the Indian Education Commission was appointed for the purpose. The second reason for the appointment of the Commission was the agitation conducted by the missionaries, particularly in England, to the effect that the educational system of India was not carried on in accordance with the Despatch of 1854. This agitation necessitated an enquiry and the Commission of 1882-83 served the purpose.

As stated before the Central Government held comprehensive quinquennial reviews of education in India in 1886-87, 1891-92, 1892-97 and 1901-2. These are very useful documents, comprehensive, reliable and detailed. But they did not try to formulate the influence policies.

It will be seen from the foregoing account that the educational policies between 1854 and 1902 were formulated by two main documents only—the Despatch of 1854 and the Report of the Indian Education Commission, 1882-83—which are complementary to each other. The first of these is already studied in Chapter IV. The principal recommendations of the second will be enumerated and discussed in the course of this and the next

chapters at the appropriate places.

Main Events of the Period 1854 to 1902: The principal educational events of the period between 1854 and 1902 were the following:

- (a) Organisation of the Education Department;
- (b) Indianisation of the agency to spread education among the people;
- (c) Development of the system of grant-in-aid;
- (d) Establishment of the Universities and substantial extension of collegiate and secondary education;
- (e) Westernisation of the content of education and its results;
- (f) Neglect of indigenous schools leading to their almost complete disappearance by 1902; the creation of a new system of primary schools instead, supported partly by local rates and fees and partly by Government grants; and
- (g) Development of education among women, Muslims, Harijans, and the aboriginals, and the development of modern education in Indian States.

The first three of these topics will be dealt with in this chapter and the remaining in Chapter VI.

The Organisation of the Education Department (1854-1902): In accordance with the orders of the Despatch of 1854 steps were soon taken to form an Education Department in every Province of India as it then existed and, by 1856, the new system was fairly at work. Owing to increase in territories or administrative re-organisation, new provinces were created in India from time to time. After 1854, however, it became a rule to create a new Education Department as soon as a new Province was created. The functions of these newly-created Provincial Departments of Education were the following:

- (a) to advise the Provincial Government on all educational matters;
- (b) to administer the funds allocated to education by the Provincial and Central Governments;

- (c) to conduct certain educational institutions directly under the authority of Government;
- (d) to supervise and inspect the working of private educational institutions which applied to the Departments for grants-in-aid or recognition;
- (e) to compile annual reports on the progress of education within their jurisdiction along with the necessary statistics and to publish them; and
- (f) generally to take all such steps as were necessary to improve and expand education.

Between 1854 and 1896, the salient features of the organisation of the Provincial Education Departments were the following:

- (a) All the superior posts were held by Europeans, in spite of the fact that a demand for Indianisation was continually being put forward (especially after 1885 when the Indian National Congress was founded);
- (b) The emoluments offered and conditions of service were not generally very attractive so that competent scholars from England did not ordinarily think of joining the Education Departments in India;
- (c) The staff of the Department was always found to be inadequate because financial stringency prevented Government from expanding the Department in proportion to the increase in schools and pupils; and
- (d) Consequently, the control and supervision of the Department over private schools was not as strict or as thorough as might have been wished.

A noteworthy event of these years was the creation of the *Indian Educational Service* in 1896. This was an All-India Service and was recruited in England by the Secretary of State for India and was given a handsome scale of pay. Consequently, most of the posts in the Service were held by Englishmen although it was theoretically open to Indians to go to England and seek entrance to it in open competition. Its avowed purpose was to attract capable persons from England to work in India. It did

not succeed in this aim and, if anything, the officials that went before 1896 were much superior to those that came in afterwards; but unhappily enough, it gave Englishmen a monopoly of most of the higher posts in the Department—a feature that came in for a good deal of well-deserved criticism at the hands of the Indian people.

Agencies to Spread Education among the Indian People: The different agencies that were engaged, during this period, in the task of spreading education among the Indian people are (a) Missionary educational enterprise; (b) Educational enterprise by officials in their individual capacity; (c) Educational enterprise by Indians on modern lines; (d) Educational institutions conducted by the Education Department; and (e) Indigenous educational institutions.

Of these, the educational enterprise of the officials, conducted in their individual capacity, disappeared completely during this period. On the transfer of the government to the Crown, the rules for the conduct and discipline of Government servants which naturally became more strict and began to be more rigorously enforced, did not generally leave much scope for *pioneer* work in individual capacity. Moreover, the need for this type of work also disappeared in course of time. Its main purpose, as stated already, was to bring forth Indian private enterprise and to initiate it in the art of conducting educational institutions on modern lines. By 1902, Indians had fully assimilated this technique and, as will be seen later, were dominating the whole field of private educational enterprise. Official guidance in this matter was no longer needed now, although it had served a useful purpose prior to 1854, and hence there is hardly any need to regret its exit.

Another activity which disappeared during this period almost completely was the vast network of indigenous educational institutions. In spite of the directives of the Despatch of 1854 and the recommendations of the Indian Education Commission, the indigenous schools were generally neglected, and by 1902, they disappeared almost completely from the scene. The detailed history of this unhappy development will be given in Chapter VI; and it would be quite enough to state here that the

only educational system that survived and progressed during the period under review was the new system of education whose ideal was to spread Western knowledge and science through the medium of English. In this branch of educational activity, the missionaries reigned supreme in 1854, Government efforts came next, and private Indian enterprise occupied the lowest place. But in the next five decades, a great revolution came about. The missionary efforts thrived for a time; but their expansion was soon restricted on account of the non-fulfilment of the great hope of proselytization which was expected to result from English schools, the lack of sufficient encouragement at the hands of Government, and the unwillingness of many missionary bodies to conduct educational activities for non-Christian children; the direct efforts of Government were also limited by financial and administrative considerations; and it was Indians alone who availed themselves most of the system of grant-in-aid, especially after the report of the Indian Education Commission of 1882. Private Indian enterprise, therefore, occupied the first and the most important place in almost all branches of educational activity even as early as 1902. This great revolution in modern education is one of the most important achievements of this period and its history can be conveniently studied under three heads, viz., (a) Missionary educational enterprise; (b) Official enterprise in education; and (c) Private Indian enterprise.

Missionary Educational Enterprise (1854-1882): The Despatch of 1854 had aroused hopes of a great era of expansion in which Government would eventually withdraw from direct educational enterprise and the missionary schools, supported by liberal grant-in-aid, would cover the whole country. But a sad disillusionment followed within a few years. The events of 1857 led to an agitation in England that missionary activities should not be encouraged and that a policy of strict religious neutrality should be adopted in India. The missionaries, on their part, made great attempts to push forward their claims. But political considerations prevailed and the missionaries lost the battle. The Queen's Proclamation of 1858 adopted a policy of strict neutrality in religious matters and gave an assurance to the people that Government had neither the right nor the desire to impose

Christianity upon India.

Between 1858 and 1882, therefore, the policy of the Department was marked by an unsympathetic attitude to mission schools and the officials of those days—many of whom were agnostics or lacking in missionary zeal—made it difficult for the missions to work either within the system or without it. For instance, here are some of the difficulties which missionaries experienced while working *within* the official system:

We cannot, however, pass over the fact that there were great disadvantages bound up with the new school system. Whereas in the first few years the Government preferred to appoint missionaries as inspectors of schools, yet later on, and especially after the great Mutiny of 1857, it turned its back almost entirely upon them, no doubt out of exaggerated religious neutrality, and chose with predilection Englishmen indifferent to religion or non-Christian Brahmans for these positions. As the yearly grants—the hinge on which the new system turned—depended on the result of the annual visitations and examinations conducted by these gentlemen, it came about that mission schools, for instance, were often in a state of very undesirable dependence on the goodwill or the good temper of officials who were antagonistic to missions. How much caprice and party spirit it was possible to exercise in the conducting of examinations, the inspection of school buildings, and the criticism of the school staff! How much vexation and worry were thereby set in motion! . . . It was also a direct consequence of the uniformity aimed at by Government—a consequence that also worked remarkably for the convenience of the inspectors!—that the text-books recommended by those in authority were introduced practically everywhere; these text-books were for the most part neutral as to religion even, if not directly antagonistic to Christianity, and their introduction simply meant that the books compiled at great pains by the missionaries were crowded out of existence.¹

Similarly, the Department often followed a policy of direct competition which made it impossible for the missionaries to

¹Richter: *A History of Missions in India*, p. 308.

work *independently* of the official educational system. Richter narrates the following interesting account of one of such experiments:

They (*i.e.*, missionary schools) now found in the rapidly developing educational schemes of the Government an all-powerful rival. What position should they take up with regard to it? The mission school has of necessity two main objects which the Government neither can nor will include in its programme—the dissemination of a fundamental knowledge of Christian teaching, and the training of a body of native assistants. It seemed to be the best solution of the difficulty for the two to pursue their schemes amicably but separately, and for the missionaries to endeavour to render their school system independent and up-to-date. The Basel Missionary Society after a short-lived enthusiasm for the new Government scheme, which was shared at that time by nearly all the Societies, was the first to take action along these lines. In 1860, it severed its connection with the Government system, and reorganised its schools along its own lines. The results were overwhelming. On entering upon this new policy the Basel Society had hoped perhaps in too sanguine a fashion, to gain possession of the whole school system in the provinces where it laboured. But instead of this the Government wrested from them the direction of all things educational, even in the midst of their main spheres of activity, Kanara and Malabar. First of all, the English school at Cannanore had to be given up because the Government had erected a similar one in the same place (1861). Then at the English school in Kanara there were not enough missionaries who, in addition to the ordinary school subjects, were sufficiently masters of English language and literature to satisfy the demands of the Government for a provincial school of this type. The English school at Calicut was simply crushed out of existence, owing to an elaborate school plan set down by the Government in the immediate neighbourhood. In the native schools such thorough-going reforms were insisted upon that, of 1450 scholars in 1862, only 648 remained in 1866. In 1867 the missionaries sent an urgent request to the Missionary Committee asking for reunion with the Government educational

system, and the Committee complied, though with heavy hearts, in order that the missionaries might not be driven to the wall, and robbed of all influence upon the rising generation. Thus an educational scheme apart from that of the Government proved an impossibility; against such rivalry it was unable to hold its own.¹

It was these difficulties that made the missionaries start an agitation, both in England and in India, to the effect that the educational administration of India was not carried on in accordance with the Despatch of 1854 which had recommended the closure or transfer of Government schools, that the officials were competing with missionary enterprise to such an extent that the latter was threatened with extinction, and that the secular educational institutions of Government were *Godless* and *irreligious*. It was this agitation that led to the appointment of the Indian Education Commission in 1882, and it was called upon to decide the following specific issues in this connection:

(a) Should Government withdraw from direct educational enterprise in favour of missionaries, as the Despatch of 1854 had led some of them to hope?

(b) What should be the policy of Government in religious education? Should it be imparted in schools or not? If it was to be imparted, in what form and subject to what conditions was it to be allowed?

Each of these issues figured prominently in the deliberations of the Commission and taken all in all, the missionaries lost the war although they did win a battle or two.

The Position of Missionary Enterprise in Indian Education: On the first of these issues, the opinion of the Commission went against the missionaries. On a careful consideration of the problem, the Commission came to the conclusion that missionary educational enterprise can only occupy a secondary place in Indian education and that Government should not withdraw in favour of missionary managements. It said:

● The question how far the withdrawal of the State from the direct provision of means of higher education would throw

¹Richter: *op. cit.*, pp. 312-13.

such education into the hands of missionary bodies, held the foremost place in all the evidence bearing on the topic of withdrawal. Prominent officers of the Department and many native gentlemen argued strongly against any withdrawal, on the ground that it must practically hand over higher education to missionaries. As a rule the missionary witnesses themselves, while generally advocating the policy of withdrawal, expressed quite the contrary opinion, stating that they neither expected nor desired that any power over education given up by the Department should pass into their hands. In a country with such varied needs as India, we should deprecate any measure which would throw excessive influence over higher education into the hands of any single agency; and particularly into the hands of an agency which, however benevolent and earnest, cannot on all points be in sympathy with the mass of the community. . . . At the same time we think it well to put on record our unanimous opinion that withdrawal of direct departmental agency should not take place in favour of missionary bodies and that departmental institutions of the higher order should not be transferred to missionary management. . . . In the point of view in which we are at present considering the question, missionary institutions hold an intermediate position between those managed by the Department and those managed by the people for themselves. On the one hand, they are the outcome of private effort, but on the other they are not strictly local; nor will encouragement to them directly foster those habits of self-reliance and combination for purposes of public utility which it is one of the objects of the grant-in-aid system to develop. Missionary institutions may serve the great purpose of showing what private effort can accomplish, and thus of inducing other agencies to come forward. They should be allowed to follow their own independent course under the general supervision of the State; and so long as there are room and need for every variety of agency in the field of education, they should receive all the encouragement and aid that private effort can legitimately claim. But it must not be forgotten that the private effort which it is mainly intended to evoke is that of the people themselves. Natives of India must constitute the most important of all agencies if educational means are ever to

be co-extensive with educational wants. Other agencies may hold a prominent place for a time, and may always find some place in a system in which great variety is on every ground desirable. But the higher education of the country will not be on a basis that can be regarded as permanent or safe, nor will it receive the wide extension that is needed, until the larger part of it at all events is provided and managed by the people of the country for themselves.¹

This recommendation is of very great importance because it decided, once for all, that missionary activities can only have a subordinate place in a national system of education in India. It was in this recommendation that the missionaries "caught a tartar" as the late M. R. Paranjpe put it. The Despatch of 1854 had led the missionaries to believe that they would ultimately provide for all the educational needs of the country. These hopes were shattered completely by the above recommendation of the Indian Education Commission which soon became the official policy in the matter.

Religious Education: Allied to this problem of Government withdrawal from direct educational enterprise was the problem of religious education, so dear to the heart of the missionaries. They had always put forward the view (a) that the Company's policy of religious neutrality was not in the spiritual interests of the Indian people; (b) that, as all true education is inseparable from religion, every school and college conducted by the Company must impart instruction in religion (which, however, they interpreted narrowly as instruction in Christianity); and (c) that the missionaries should have full freedom, in spite of their being in receipt of State grants, to teach the Bible compulsorily to all students who may join their schools.

In so far as the general demand for religious education was concerned, the ranks of the missionaries were soon strengthened by other groups. The Brahmo Samajists, the Prarthana Samajists and the Arya Samajists, the new sects among the Hindus, also demanded religious education in schools on the lines of their

¹Report, pp. 452-4.

own faith; the orthodox Hindus who, in the earlier period, had fought against the new education altogether now gave up that fight and began to demand that the new schools should combine instruction in the principles of Hindu religion with Western science and literature, in the case of all Hindu children; and the Muslims who were now coming under the modern system of education insisted that the Koran should necessarily be taught to Muslim children. In short, there was, by 1882, a general feeling among several sections of the people that the policy of secular education should be abandoned and that religious education should be provided to each child in the principles of his own faith. Such a proposal could not obviously be accepted by the Commission on administrative and financial grounds. The Commission, therefore, reiterated the necessity of keeping all Government schools secular. The missionaries, therefore, lost their demand that Christianity should be taught in all Government schools; even the modified demand that each child should be taught his own religion was rejected. The policy of secular education in Government schools was upheld once more, and in spite of all attacks, continues to hold the field even today.

As a corollary to this decision, the question of religious education in aided schools came up for discussion. Here, one line of action was to follow the American precedent and declare that no institution which imparted religious education should be aided by Government. But at this time, America had hardly come into the picture and our administrators were generally guided by English precedents. It was, therefore, decided (a) that private schools should be permitted to impart such instruction as they chose; (b) that Government should just ignore such religious education; and (c) that it should pay grants-in-aid on the basis of the secular education imparted in them. This view had already been propounded by the Despatch of 1854 and the Commission, in deference chiefly to missionary opinion, reiterated it with almost equal firmness.

This decision satisfied the missionaries; but Indian public opinion in general was opposed to this concession to mission enterprise. It was pointed out that, in England, where the freedom to impart religious education of its choice was given to an aided school, the parents also were given a defence in the *conscience-clause* which

enabled them to withdraw their children, if they so desired, from the religious education to which they objected. The view that such a conscience-clause should be adopted in India was, therefore, strongly put forward before the Indian Education Commission. The plea, however, was not accepted except in one special case, viz., where the aided school was the only one of its type in the locality. In such a case, the Commission recommended that "the system of grants-in-aid be based as hitherto, in accordance with the Despatch of 1854, on an entire abstinence from interference with the religious instruction conveyed in the institution assisted: provided that when the only institution of any particular grade existing in any town or village is an institution in which religious instruction forms a part of the ordinary course, it shall be open to parents to withdraw their children from attendance at such instruction without forfeiting any of the benefits of the institution."¹

The enquiries held by the Indian Education Commission marked the last great occasion when the Government policy in religious education was discussed in India. Ever since 1813 when the Company accepted responsibility for the education of the Indian people, the subject of religious education was almost continuously debated upon and no final decision could be reached. The credit of having laid down a definite and final policy on the subject, therefore, belongs to the Indian Education Commission. Its rulings were perhaps none too happy. They did not satisfy *any* section of public opinion in *full*; but they had to be accepted as the only practicable solutions of the problem under Indian conditions.

Missionary Educational Enterprise (1882-1902): Taken together, the decisions of the Indian Education Commission convinced the missions that the aggressive policy of Duff needed a revision. They made the missionaries think, take stock of the whole position, and outline a new educational policy to guide their educational enterprise in future. This was done during the next twenty years and by 1902, the missionaries adopted the policy of restricting their educational activities to the maintenance of a few educational institutions in as high a state of efficiency as

¹Report, pp. 448-9.

possible and abandoned their earlier dreams of commanding the whole educational field in India.

The reasons for the decision were several. In the first place, the prominent position which missionary enterprise occupied in Indian education at the time of the Despatch of 1854 was whittled down considerably by the recommendations of the Indian Education Commission. Secondly, the missionaries had a further disappointment when they found that the spread of English education did not lead to considerable proselytization as expected by them. Thirdly, a new party arose among the missionaries themselves which held that it was no part of missionary enterprise to maintain schools for non-Christian children. This is how a missionary describes the view of this party:

Now whether it is better, from a missionary point of view, to limit mission school education to the needs of the native Christian community, or to use the large Government grants as a lever by which the schools may be so developed as to give missionaries a commanding influence over the scholars who pass through them? Mark well! The point at issue is not whether missions should keep up sufficient schools to meet the needs of the native Christian community. That is a matter on which there has never been any serious difference of opinion. The question is, whether missions should establish elementary and secondary schools for the non-Christian youth of India in order through them to disseminate Christian knowledge amongst the heathen masses of the people. No branch of mission work has caused such heated debate as this of schools for heathen children. At the decennial Missionary Conferences at Allahabad in 1872, at Calcutta in 1882, at Bombay in 1892, and at the South India Conference at Bangalore in 1879, it invariably led to animated and often to elaborate discussion. It was of special moment that the great Missionary Secretary of the American Board, Rufus Anderson, and his entire Society, and along with them the English Baptist Missionary Society, should cast their entire weight into the balance against the maintenance of an extensive system of schools for heathen children. What arguments did these opponents advance? "School teaching is not missionary work." It is no duty of the home churches at

their own cost to spread higher education among any people whatsoever, save in so far as their immediate *raison d'être*, the propagation of the gospel, is advanced thereby." Missions have neither a call nor a mandate to teach English literature, history, mathematics, or natural science. The preaching of the gospel to the heathen and the exercise of pastoral care over the native churches is so clearly the head and front of all missionary labour that everything must be considered as pure 'alien stuff' which does not directly further this end. Any union between the State and Missions can only be the detriment of the latter; it is used by the stronger partner, the State, simply as an auxiliary to the attainment of its own ends, some of which are alien to the objects of missions, and some of which are indeed antagonistic to those objects. The inspection of mission schools by heathen inspectors, the introduction of text-books utterly incompatible with the standpoint of missions, the regulations with regard to the teaching staff, school buildings, the school inventory, school hours, etc., place missions at the mercy or the caprice of their opponents. Besides, the whole thing is like a screw with an endless worm; at one time an order will be issued making all religious instruction optional, and only to be given out of ordinary school hours (Educational Despatch, 1885, in the North-Western Provinces, withdrawn after pressure from missionary circles); at another, it will be decreed that all the subjects that are under Government inspection must be taught during the first five hours of every day, whilst religious teaching must, if at all, be taken during a sixth hour, when all the strength and power of attention on the part of the children is exhausted (Travancore, 1902). It is a delusion and a snare, in an educational system the whole efforts which are directed towards examination drill and towards the acquirement by the scholars of a parrot-like facility in chattering English, for missionaries to hope accomplish anything of value in imparting Christian knowledge—a subject that is of no use in the examination. The scholars tolerate the period set apart for Christian religious teaching, often unwillingly making the best of it as a kind of bad bargain because they have a better chance of passing the State examinations in a mission school, or because the fees of the mission school are lower than those of the competing

Government establishment. But it is unworthy of mission to use good teaching in secular subjects for an examination as a decoy by which to entice, for purposes of religious instruction, that portion of the youth of the country which hungers after knowledge. And the results of mission schools, as regards the number of baptisms, bear no sort of comparison with the means and strength employed; many mission schools are unable to record one case of baptism in an entire decade. And further, what could this elite of highly trained missionaries, who alone can be employed in educational mission work, in that case accomplish along the lines of direct missionary work? Precisely the most gifted amongst them are confined to close and stuffy school-rooms, and both intellectually and spiritually are becoming atrophied under the mechanical school grind, whilst away outside, far across the thickly populated tracts of land, millions are dying without having once heard the good tidings of great joy!¹

Of course, a number of strong arguments were also urged on the other side. It was admitted that the number of conversions through English schools and colleges was extremely small. But it was asserted that this comparatively small number of converts was "the very crown and rejoicing of Indian missions, the most brilliant representatives and pillars of the Indian church, the leading spirits in the ever-increasing body of Indian Christians . . . the officers of the main army which is composed of members belonging to the lower orders of the society."² It was also urged that missionaries held an important place in the world of Indian education and that they ought not to lose it; that the teachings of Christ were spreading largely among the educated Indians although only a few of them became the direct adherents of the Christian religion; that it was a duty of the missionaries to satisfy the growing Indian demand for knowledge; and that the mission schools were the only means by which the gospel could be preached to the upper and influential classes of society.

The sum total of all these discussions was the conclusion that missionaries should rest content with the maintenance of a few

¹Richter: *op. cit.*, pp. 313-15.

²*Ibid.*, p. 315.

efficient schools and colleges and should refrain, as far as possible, from any large-scale expansion of their educational activities. This policy was adopted soon after 1882, and the missionaries have since directed their efforts to such fields as have not yet attracted Indian workers, viz., the improvement of Aborigines, Hill Tribes and other backward communities.

Institutions Directly Conducted by the Education Department (1854-82): Similar in effect to this decision of the missionaries *not* to expand their educational activities on any large scale was the policy of Government to depend mainly on private enterprise to provide for the educational needs of the country—a policy that necessarily implied a refusal to multiply the educational institutions which were under the direct control of the Education Departments. This policy, as pointed out in Chapter IV, was clearly enunciated in the Despatch of 1854, which, even at this early date, looked forward "to the time when any general system of education entirely provided by Government may be discontinued, with the gradual advance of the system of grant-in-aid, and when many of the existing Government institutions, especially those of a higher order, may be safely closed, or transferred to the management of local bodies under the control of, and aided by, the State" (para. 64). The Principal objective of this policy which may be briefly described as the *Doctrine of State-withdrawal* was, as already stated, to patronise missionary enterprise—an idea whose wisdom came to be largely challenged, especially after the events of 1857. Between 1858 and 1882, therefore, the officials of the Department did not observe these directions of the Despatch of 1854 and brought about a rapid multiplication of Government educational institutions.¹ This was due to (a) the fear of possible political repercussions of Government encouragement to missionary enterprise, (b) the absence of private Indian enterprise on a sufficiently large scale, and (c) the desire of officials of the Department, on grounds of efficiency, to conduct schools and colleges under their direct supervision.

The missionaries, in particular, did not like this policy. They urged that the Doctrine of State-withdrawal was the only right

¹Government institutions numbered 15,462 (with 737,176 pupils) in 1881-82 as against 1,406 (with 62,731 pupils) in 1855.

policy for Government and that so long as Government was maintaining its own institutions, it could never adopt an impartial attitude of full encouragement to private institutions. They, therefore, started a crusade, both in India and England, demanding, on the basis of statements made in the Despatch of 1854, that the Government colleges and schools should either be closed or transferred to private enterprise. The Indian Education Commission, therefore, was called upon to decide whether (a) the Doctrine of State-withdrawal was educationally sound and (b) if so, the manner in which it could be properly implemented.

The first of these issues proved to be extremely controversial and the evidence led before the Commission included a vigorous championship of the case *for* and *against* State-withdrawal. But on a very careful consideration of the problem, the Commission recommended that the Doctrine of State-withdrawal enunciated by the Despatch of 1854 was intrinsically sound and specially suited to the situation in India. Several weighty reasons prompted this decision. In the first place, Government had frankly told the Commission that the funds at its disposal were so limited that if satisfactory progress was to be made at all, "every available private agency must be called into action to relieve and assist the public funds in connection with every branch of public Instruction". A system of grant-in-aid became, therefore, an absolute necessity, "if the educational means of the country were to be made co-extensive with educational wants". Secondly, the paucity of funds made it necessary to make every pie go the longest way and it was urged that, if Government were to transfer its institutions (which were necessarily costlier) to private bodies, it would effect a considerable saving which might be advantageously used for aiding more educational institutions. For these and other reasons, the Commission recommended that *Government should not only curtail the expansion of its institutions, but should also withdraw from direct enterprise as soon as a suitable agency, public or private, became available to carry on the work.* This fundamental recommendation raised two further issues: In whose favour should the withdrawal take place and what should be the conditions for such a withdrawal? As stated already, the Commission did not favour State-withdrawal in favour of missionaries. But it recommended (a) a *complete* withdrawal of the State

in the sphere of primary education in favour of local boards and municipalities and (b) a *gradual* withdrawal in the sphere of secondary and collegiate education in favour of private Indian enterprise subject to the general safeguard that such a step does not endanger the future of the institution or lower the quality of instruction given therein or reduce the educational opportunities already provided in the area concerned. The first of these recommendations was accepted by Government *in toto* and almost all primary schools were transferred to the control of local bodies like municipalities and local boards. But it must be remembered that this decision does not really amount to a withdrawal in favour of a private agency as visualised by the Despatch of 1854. The local bodies are a part of Government and the transfer of primary schools to their control was really equivalent to an administrative decentralisation and *not* to a transfer from a Government to a non-Government agency. The second recommendation, however, was not accepted and, even after 1882, the Department did not withdraw from direct educational enterprise in secondary and collegiate education. This was due partly to the desire of the Department to conduct its own institutions and partly to the unnecessary fear that the efficiency of these institutions would suffer if they were transferred to private Indian enterprise. Between 1854 and 1902 therefore, it may be said that the Doctrine of State-withdrawal from direct educational enterprise remained, on paper, as the official policy of Government but was almost a dead letter in practice. The effects of this doctrine on Indian education in general will be discussed later in the closing paragraph of this chapter. Here it would be enough to state that it succeeded in checking effectively a rapid multiplication of educational institutions directly conducted by the Department. The result was, in a way, inevitable on account of the general financial stringency that prevailed in this period. All that the Doctrine of State-withdrawal did, therefore, was to cloak the inability of Government to expand its educational activities as a noble administrative policy wherein direct State enterprise was deliberately controlled in order that private enterprise might have "room to expand".

Private Indian Enterprise (1854-1902): It will have been seen from the foregoing discussion that, between 1854 and 1902, both the missionaries and Government decided *not* to attempt a large-scale expansion of their educational institutions. This restriction of missionary and governmental enterprise in education opened the whole field of educational activity to private Indian enterprise and made them almost solely responsible for meeting the rapidly growing educational demands of the people. It is to the credit of Government that Indian enterprise was given full freedom to develop and liberal assistance during the period under review. It is also to the credit of educated Indians that they rose to the occasion, undertook the work of educating their brethren at considerable sacrifice and not only met all the growing educational demands of the people but also helped to spread the love of education still further by their life and teaching.

In 1854, the modern educational institutions conducted by Indians were so few that *private enterprise* really meant *missionary enterprise*. But as early as 1882, the position was considerably changed and Indians occupied a fairly important position as the following statistics for 1881-82 will show:

Institutions	Conducted by Indian Managers	Conducted by other than Indian Managers
Arts Colleges	5	18
Secondary Schools	1,341	757
Primary Schools	54,662	1,842
Professional Colleges and Schools	10	18
Total	66,018	2,635

N.B. Figures for British India and some Indian States (exclusive of Burma)

It will be seen that, even in 1882, it was only in the field of higher education that the missionaries had a lead over Indian

enterprise. During the next two decades, however, Indian private enterprise increased so rapidly that in 1901-2, the colleges under Indian management numbered 42 as against 37 under missionary management, and the large bulk of private secondary schools came to be controlled by Indians themselves.

The motives that led to this expansion of Indian private enterprise were mainly patriotic. By about 1880, there was a wave of social, religious, and political reforms in India—a veritable beginning of a renaissance in Indian national life. The leaders of this movement were inspired by a faith in the ideal of building up a great nation in India and their ultimate objects were social and political. But they realised that a new nation after their heart's desire could not be built up unless the education of the country's youth came to be controlled and managed by Indians themselves. Hence it was that a movement for establishing schools and colleges started about this time in all provinces—a movement which finds a brilliant expression in such institutions as the Mahomedan Anglo-Oriental College at Aligarh and the Deccan Education Society of Poona.

At first, the efforts of Indians were restricted to the collection of funds and even the colleges under Indian management generally had European principals. It was necessary to do so because, in those days, Indians were not considered fit to become principals of colleges or even headmasters of high schools. This prejudice, however unfair it may appear today, had some justification in those early years; firstly, Indians versed in *European Knowledge and Science*—which was the object of the educational system—were not available. Secondly, the idea that English should be taught, or can only be taught properly, by one whose mother-tongue is English was firmly rooted at this time; and, as the teaching of English was the most important part of education, the employment of Europeans, even in schools and colleges under Indian management, became inevitable on grounds of efficiency.

It is hardly necessary to say that Indian private enterprise could not have thrived much so long as it was compelled to depend upon European headmasters and principals who were not inspired by the same ideals as those of the Indians. Secondly, a rapid extension of education and the reduction of its cost to a figure which was within the means of the average Indian were also impossible

so long as costly Europeans continued to be entertained. What the situation demanded was a sacrifice on the part of educated Indians of undoubted ability. To such men, a lucrative post under Government was available for the mere asking. But the interests of the nation's education required them "to scorn delights and live laborious days", to turn their back on Government service and voluntarily decide to live on a pittance in private institutions. It was a great demand and it is a golden event in the history of Indian education that educated Indians should have risen to the occasion and made the sacrifices demanded. When persons like R. P. Paranjpe—a senior wrangler of the Cambridge University—began to work as principals of private colleges, the stamp of inferiority that was attached to Indian private enterprise vanished at once, the spread of education became rapid, and its cost was considerably reduced.

Too much tribute cannot be paid to the workers in the cause of Indian education in the years between 1882 and 1902. It was these nameless sons of Mother India that satisfied as well as created the public demand for more education that grew up at this time and thereby laid the foundation of the modern national life in India.

Grant-in-aid: The policy of grant-in-aid to private enterprise is an inevitable corollary of the Doctrine of State-withdrawal and it is, therefore, hardly a matter for surprise if a great emphasis on grant-in-aid was placed in all the important documents of this period. The Despatch of 1854, as shown already, was the first document to recommend the adoption of a regular scheme of grant-in-aid. This direction was soon carried out by the Education Departments which framed grant-in-aid codes and began to inspect and financially assist the private schools that came into existence to meet the evergrowing desire for education. It is unnecessary here to go into the details of the provincial systems of grant-in-aid as they were evolved between 1854 and 1882. But the following summary of the criticism levelled against these systems by those who had an experience of their operation will show their principal achievements and failures:

(a) Although private enterprise had increased very considerably between 1854 and 1882 and although a part of the credit for this

increase was undoubtedly due to the policy of grant-in-aid adopted in 1854, it would nevertheless be true to say that even better results would have been obtained if the Departmental policies were free from certain defects.

(b) Private enterprise did not always get the best scope or adequate financial assistance.

(c) The amount of grant-in-aid was generally low or inadequate. It was also alleged, by several witnesses, that greater partiality was shown towards the mission schools in distributing the grants; that grants were often not paid in time; that they were often suddenly curtailed or withdrawn; and that the failure to provide adequate funds in the budget resulted in a reduction of grants even for such reasons as increase in the number of private schools or in the expenditure of Government institutions.

(d) It was argued that the rules of grants-in-aid were often cumbersome and elaborate; that they were not always given wide publicity; and that managers of private institutions were not often consulted while revising or amending them.

(e) Public examinations were often so used as to impose uniform curricula and text-books on all schools and thereby render the independent development of private schools impossible.

(f) Private schools were not sympathetically treated and were not accepted as equals of Government schools in matters of status and privileges; charges of hostility, competition or indifference often levelled against Departmental officers in their dealings with the aided schools. It was also argued that the representatives of non-Departmental educational bodies were not generally consulted in drawing up educational policies; that they were often excluded from examinerships; that scholarships were often confined to pupils of Government schools only; and that the axe of retrenchment fell first on aided schools.

The Commission carefully considered all these charges and came to the conclusion that a zealous and all-out effort to encourage private enterprise had not yet been made. It, therefore, made the following recommendations from this point of view:

(a) Institutions under private managers cannot be successful unless they are frankly accepted as an essential part of the general scheme of education. With a view to securing the

co-operation of Government and non-Government institutions, the managers of the latter be consulted on matters of general educational interest, and that their students be admitted on equal terms to competition for certificates, scholarships and other public distinctions.¹

(b) In the conduct of all departmental examinations, managers or teachers of non-Government schools should be associated as far as possible with the officers of the Department.

(c) All scholarships and rewards that Government confers should be given to pupils from all schools and not restricted to those in Government institutions only.

(d) The proximity of a Government school should not be regarded as of itself a sufficient reason for refusing aid to a non-Government school.

(e) With the object of rendering assistance to schools in the form best suited to the circumstances of each province and thus to call forth the largest amount of local co-operation, the grant-in-aid rules should be revised by the Local Governments in consultation with the managers of schools. The revised rules should define without ambiguity and the amount and duration of the aid to which an institution may be entitled and the conditions of grants for buildings, apparatus and furniture.

(f) Every application for a grant-in-aid should receive an official reply and in case of refusal the reasons for such refusal should always be given.

(g) It should be a general principle that the grant-in-aid should depend (i) on *locality*, i.e., larger proportionate grants be given to schools in backward districts; and (ii) on *the class of institutions*, i.e., greater proportionate aid be given to those in which a large amount of self-support cannot be expected, e.g., girl's schools and schools for lower castes and backward communities.

(h) Grants be paid without delay when they become due according to the rules.

(i) The revised rules for grant-in-aid and any subsequent alterations made in them should be not merely published in the official gazettes, but translated into the Indian languages, and

¹Report, pp. 436-7.

communicated to the press, to the managers of aided and private institutions and to all who are likely to help in any way in the spread of education.

(j) A periodically increasing provision should be made in the educational budget of each province for the expansion of aided institutions.

(k) Variety in the course of instruction in aided schools should be encouraged by grants for special subjects.

(l) Greater latitude should be given to the managers of aided schools in fixing the course of instruction and the medium through which it is conveyed.

(m) Care should be taken lest public examinations become the means of practically imposing the same text-books or curriculum on all schools.

(n) It should be distinctly laid down that Indians having the necessary qualifications should be employed as Inspectors of Schools more commonly than in the past.

These comprehensive recommendations of the Commission were based on undisputed principles of a successful system of grant-in-aid such as the recognition of aided institutions as equal to Government institutions in matters of status and privileges, the provision of liberal financial assistance, abstinence from interference with internal management, and appointment of officials who can command the confidence of the managers. They were accepted by Government and the development of private enterprise, particularly in the field of collegiate and secondary education, was therefore, very rapid between 1882 and 1902. Owing to the contraction of missionary enterprise, however, it was the newly rising Indian private enterprise that got the full benefit of this liberal policy and was thereby greatly helped to come into its own.

The Role of the State in Education (1854-1902): We are now in a position to discuss the role of the State in Indian education between 1854 and 1902. It will have been seen from the foregoing discussion that, during this period,

(a) Government did not and could not identify itself with the

people. It always held itself aloof and spoke of the Indian people making attempts to educate themselves, either through private effort or through the local bodies with whose administration they were more closely associated;

- (b) Government organised and maintained an Education Department primarily to supervise private enterprise and incidentally to maintain some institutions of its own;
- (c) Government maintained a few educational institutions under its direct control. Some of these were the historical legacies of the past, while others were meant to supplement private effort and provided costly courses, particularly in vocational education, which could not be provided by private enterprise.

The principal activity of Government during this period, therefore, was to assist private enterprise financially and to supervise it. The first of these objectives was not always satisfactorily carried out and the amount of aid given to private schools was not generally adequate. In so far as the second objective is concerned, the Department followed a policy of *laissez-faire*. A school that did not ask for aid was not controlled at all. Even in the case of aided schools the control of the Department was far from rigorous and was mostly restricted to a general inspection, examination of pupils and an enquiry as to whether the grant-in-aid from Government was properly spent. This lenient attitude led, of course, to the existence of many an inefficient institution; at the same time, it did considerable good by helping private Indian enterprise to develop quickly in these early years.

The State can play an infinite number of roles in education from complete indifference (as in England before 1833) to full responsibility (as in England today). In India, Government was evidently progressing, during this period, from the role of complete indifference which prevailed prior to 1813 to that of full assumption of responsibility. But the progress was slow and halting because Government refused, as a matter of policy, to provide *all* the educational institutions needed by the people. It only undertook to guide and assist, to such extent as was possible, the educational institutions which the people themselves would come forward to private and even looked forward to a

time when the private effort of the people themselves would provide *all* the educational institutions required by the country and when Government would not be required to maintain any institution of its own. This attitude was due mainly to the failure of Government to identify itself with the people and it is to this attitude that we can ultimately trace the main achievements and failures of this period. Private enterprise is a suitable agency for the spread of secondary and collegiate education of a literary type because such education is not costly to impart and can be made to pay its way through fees and grants-in-aid. Very naturally, therefore, it was this type of education that flourished most in India between 1854 and 1902. On the other hand, the primary education of the masses and vocational and technical education are such costly affairs that no tangible progress is possible unless Government takes a bold stand and accepts all the financial and administrative liabilities involved in the proposal. The Government of India was not prepared to do so and hence the cause of mass and vocational education languished considerably.

In England, the State accepted responsibility for education in 1833. But as the people and the Government were one, the progress of education was very rapid. In 1870 compulsory education was introduced and by 1902, compulsory education between 7 and 13 years of age was being effectively enforced in all parts of the country. In India, the Company accepted the responsibility for educating the people in 1813—twenty years prior to the similar event in England. But owing to the lack of identification between the Government and the people, the principle of compulsory primary education was not accepted at all and Government talked, not of an aggressive and bold educational policy to educate the masses, but of emphasising the growth of private enterprise, and looked forward to a day when it could eliminate even the few institutions that it directly conducted. It is mainly because of this policy that India remained so far behind England in 1902.